# Vectors

Last modified: 2026-10-22 08:35:00 (PDT)

## Vectors

**Exercise 0.1** (Store a data point as one object)**.** A house has a floor area of 120 square meters, 3 bedrooms, and an age of 15 years.

1. Write these three numbers as a single vertical list $\underset{\sim}{x}$, in the order given, and call its entries $x_1$, $x_2$ and $x_3$. What is $x_2$?
2. Does the list $(3, 120, 15)$ describe the same house?

Solution

*Solution* 0.1.

1. Stacking the three numbers in order gives

$$\underset{\sim}{x} = \begin{bmatrix} 120 \\ 3 \\ 15 \end{bmatrix},$$

   so $x_2 = 3$, the number of bedrooms.

2. No. The list $(3, 120, 15)$ would describe a house with 3 square meters of floor area and 120 bedrooms. An entry's position says what it measures, so the order of the entries matters.

**Definition 0.1** (Column vector)**.** A **column vector** [1] of length $p$ is an ordered list of $p$ real numbers, written vertically as a $p \times 1$ array:

$$\underset{\sim}{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ \vdots \\ x_p \end{bmatrix}$$

**Remark** (Vectors are columns by default)

*Remark* 0.1 (Vectors are columns by default). In these notes, as in most statistics textbooks, a vector is a column vector unless stated otherwise. A vector written inline as a list in parentheses is still a column vector: for example, $\underset{\sim}{x} = (2, -1, 5)$ means

$$\underset{\sim}{x} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}.$$

**Remark** (Why the vector mark sits under the symbol)

*Remark* 0.2 (Why the vector mark sits under the symbol). In these notes, the mark that shows a symbol is a vector is a tilde under the letter, as in $\underset{\sim}{x}$. Many books instead use a bold letter or an arrow over the letter. We chose a mark underneath because bold letters are hard to write by hand on a board, and because the space above a letter is already used by the hat that marks an estimated value, as in $\hat{\beta}$. The notation choices page gives the full reasons and an example of an estimated vector$\underset{\sim}{\hat{\beta}}$.

**Definition 0.2** (The set $\mathbb{R}^p$)**.** For a positive integer $p$, $\mathbb{R}^p$ is the set of all column vectors of length $p$ whose entries are real numbers.

**Remark** (Reading $\underset{\sim}{x} \in \mathbb{R}^p$)

*Remark* 0.3 (Reading $\underset{\sim}{x} \in \mathbb{R}^p$). Writing $\underset{\sim}{x} \in \mathbb{R}^p$ says, in one symbol, that $\underset{\sim}{x}$ is a column vector with $p$ real entries. For example, $\underset{\sim}{(1, -2, 0.5)} \in \mathbb{R}^3$. The vector $\underset{\sim}{(1, 2)}$ is not in $\mathbb{R}^3$, because it has only 2 entries; it is in $\mathbb{R}^2$. In Exercise 0.1, $\underset{\sim}{x} \in \mathbb{R}^3$.

**Definition 0.3** (Scalar)**.** In linear algebra, a **scalar** [2] is a single real number, as opposed to a vector or a matrix, which holds several numbers.

**Example 0.1** (Scalars and a vector)**.** The numbers 5 and $-0.2$ are scalars. The column vector $(5, -0.2)$ is not a scalar: it has 2 entries, so it is in $\mathbb{R}^2$ (Definition 0.2), and each of

its 2 entries is a scalar.

**Definition 0.4** (Real-valued (scalar-valued) function)**.** A function $f : A \to \mathbb{R}$, whose values are numbers, is **real-valued** (also called **scalar-valued**, since its values are scalars).

**Definition 0.5** (Vector-valued function)**.** A function $f : A \to \mathbb{R}^m$, whose values are vectors (Definition 0.2), is **vector-valued**.

**Example 0.2** (A real-valued and a vector-valued function)**.** On $\mathbb{R}^2$, $f(\underset{\sim}{x}) = x_1 + x_2$ is real-valued and $g(\underset{\sim}{x}) = \begin{bmatrix} x_1 + x_2 \\ x_1 - x_2 \end{bmatrix}$ is vector-valued:

$$f\left(\begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}\right) = 3 + 4 = 7, \qquad g\left(\begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}\right) = \begin{bmatrix} 3 + 4 \\ 3 - 4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 7 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}$$

**Definition 0.6** (Transpose)**.** The **transpose** of a column vector $\underset{\sim}{x}$ is the row vector with the same sequence of entries, written horizontally:

$$\underset{\sim}{x}^\top \equiv \underset{\sim}{x}' \equiv [x_1,\ x_2,\ \ldots,\ x_p]$$

**Example 0.3** (Transposing a column vector)**.** The transpose of the column vector with entries $2, -1, 5$ is the row vector with the same entries:

$$\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}^\top = [2,\ -1,\ 5].$$

**Definition 0.7** (Vector addition)**.** The **sum** of two column vectors $\underset{\sim}{x}$ and $\underset{\sim}{y}$ of the same length $p$ is the column vector $\underset{\sim}{x} + \underset{\sim}{y}$ of length $p$ obtained by adding entry by entry:

$$(\underset{\sim}{x} + \underset{\sim}{y})_i \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} x_i + y_i, \quad i = 1, \ldots, p$$

**Example 0.4** (Adding two vectors)**.**

$$\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\3\end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix}4\\5\\6\end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix}1+4\\2+5\\3+6\end{bmatrix}$$
$$= \begin{bmatrix}5\\7\\9\end{bmatrix}$$

**Definition 0.8** (Dot product)**.** For any two real-valued vectors $\underset{\sim}{x} = (x_1, \ldots, x_p)$ and $\underset{\sim}{y} = (y_1, \ldots, y_p)$ of the same length $p$, the **dot product** of $\underset{\sim}{x}$ and $\underset{\sim}{y}$ is:

$$\underset{\sim}{x} \cdot \underset{\sim}{y} = \underset{\sim}{x}^\top \underset{\sim}{y} \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \sum_{i=1}^{p} x_i y_i \tag{1}$$

See also the definitions in:

- Dobson and Barnett [3], Section 1.3 (equation 1.1, page 7)
- Kaplan [4], chapter on vectors
- wikipedia

The dot product has a different generalization for two matrices; see wikipedia for more.

**Example 0.5** (A dot product)**.** For $\underset{\sim}{x} = (1, 2, 3)$ and $\underset{\sim}{y} = (4, 5, 6)$:

$$\begin{aligned}
\underset{\sim}{x} \cdot \underset{\sim}{y} &= 1 \cdot 4 + 2 \cdot 5 + 3 \cdot 6 && \text{(definition of the dot product)}\\
&= 4 + 10 + 18 && \text{(multiply)}\\
&= 32 && \text{(add)}
\end{aligned}$$

**Definition 0.9** (Linear combination)**.** A **linear combination** of the numbers $a_1, \ldots, a_k$ with coefficients $c_1, \ldots, c_k$ (Definition 0.10) is the weighted sum

$$c_1 a_1 + \cdots + c_k a_k = \sum_{i=1}^{k} c_i a_i$$

A linear combination of vectors $\underset{\sim}{v}_1, \ldots, \underset{\sim}{v}_k$ of the same length is defined entry by entry: entry $j$ of $\sum_{i=1}^{k} c_i \underset{\sim}{v}_i$ is the linear combination of the $j$th entries of $\underset{\sim}{v}_1, \ldots, \underset{\sim}{v}_k$ with the same coefficients.

**Definition 0.10** (Coefficients of a linear combination)**.** The numbers $c_1, \ldots, c_k$ in a linear combination (Definition 0.9) $\sum_{i=1}^{k} c_i a_i$ are its **coefficients**.

**Example 0.6** (Coefficients of a linear combination of numbers)**.** The linear combination of the numbers 4 and 5 with coefficients 2 and 3 is $2 \cdot 4 + 3 \cdot 5 = 8 + 15 = 23$.

**Example 0.7** (A linear combination of two vectors)**.** The linear combination of $(1, 0)^\top$ and $(0, 1)^\top$ with coefficients 2 and 3 is $(2 \cdot 1 + 3 \cdot 0,\ 2 \cdot 0 + 3 \cdot 1)^\top = (2, 3)^\top$.

Remark (The dot product is a linear combination)

*Remark* 0.4 (The dot product is a linear combination). The dot product $\underset{\sim}{x} \cdot \underset{\sim}{y}$ is a linear combination (Definition 0.9) of the entries of $\underset{\sim}{y}$, with coefficients $x_1, \ldots, x_p$. In Example 0.5, $\underset{\sim}{x} \cdot \underset{\sim}{y} = 1 \cdot 4 + 2 \cdot 5 + 3 \cdot 6$ is the linear combination of 4, 5, and 6 with coefficients 1, 2, and 3.

The dot product is also the standard *inner product* on $\mathbb{R}^p$; "inner product" is the general notion (Definition 1 in Inner Products and Orthogonality, later in these notes), of which the dot product is one example.

**Theorem 0.1** (Dot product is symmetric)**.** *The dot product is symmetric:*

$$\underset{\sim}{x} \cdot \underset{\sim}{y} = \underset{\sim}{y} \cdot \underset{\sim}{x}$$

Proof

*Proof.*

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{x} \cdot \underset{\sim}{y} &= \sum_{i=1}^{p} x_i y_i && \text{(definition of the dot product)} \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{p} y_i x_i && \text{(products of numbers are symmetric)} \\ &= \underset{\sim}{y} \cdot \underset{\sim}{x} && \text{(definition of the dot product)} \end{aligned}$$

□

### Special vectors

**Definition 0.11** (Zero vector)**.** The **zero vector** $\underset{\sim}{0}$ of length $p$ has all entries equal to zero:

$$\underset{\sim}{0} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

Remark (The zero vector is the additive identity)

*Remark* 0.5 (The zero vector is the additive identity). Adding the zero vector to a vector leaves it unchanged (Definition 0.7): $\underset{\sim}{x} + \underset{\sim}{0} = \underset{\sim}{x}$ for any vector $\underset{\sim}{x}$ of the same length, so $\underset{\sim}{0}$ is the identity element for vector addition. For example,

$$\begin{aligned} (2, -1) + (0, 0) &= (2 + 0, -1 + 0) \\ &= (2, -1). \end{aligned}$$

**Definition 0.12** (Mean (average, sample mean))**.** The **mean** [5] (or **average**) of $n$ numbers $y_1, \ldots, y_n$ is their sum divided by how many there are:

$$\bar{y} \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^{n} y_i$$

**Example 0.8** (The mean of three numbers)**.** For $y_1 = 2$, $y_2 = -1$ and $y_3 = 5$:

$$\begin{aligned} \bar{y} &= \frac{1}{3}(2 + (-1) + 5) && \text{(definition of the mean, with } n = 3) \\ &= \frac{1}{3} \cdot 6 && \text{(add)} \\ &= 2 && \text{(multiply)} \end{aligned}$$

Remark (The sample mean estimates the population mean)

*Remark* 0.6 (The sample mean estimates the population mean). When the numbers are observed data values, $\bar{y}$ is also called the sample mean, an estimator of the population mean.

**Definition 0.13** (Ones vector)**.** The **ones vector** $\underset{\sim}{1}$ of length $p$ has all entries equal to one:

$$\underset{\sim}{1} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ \vdots \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

Remark (The ones vector sums the entries)

*Remark* 0.7 (The ones vector sums the entries). The dot product (Definition 0.8) of $\underset{\sim}{1}$ with $\underset{\sim}{x}$ is the sum of the entries of $\underset{\sim}{x}$:

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{1} \cdot \underset{\sim}{x} &= \sum_{i=1}^{p} 1 \cdot x_i \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{p} x_i. \end{aligned}$$

For example, for $\underset{\sim}{x} = (2, -1, 5)$,

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{1} \cdot \underset{\sim}{x} &= 2 + (-1) + 5 \\ &= 6, \end{aligned}$$

and dividing by the length $p = 3$ gives the mean of the entries, $6/3 = 2$.

**Definition 0.14** (Indicator vector (standard basis vector))**.** The $j$-th **indicator vector** (or **standard basis vector** [6] ) $\underset{\sim}{e}_j$ of length $p$ has a 1 in position $j$ and 0s elsewhere:

$$(\underset{\sim}{e}_j)_i = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases} \qquad \underset{\sim}{e}_j = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \leftarrow \text{position } j$$

Remark (Indicator vectors build every vector)

*Remark* 0.8 (Indicator vectors build every vector). For $p = 3$, the indicator vectors are $\underset{\sim}{e}_1 = (1, 0, 0)$, $\underset{\sim}{e}_2 = (0, 1, 0)$, and $\underset{\sim}{e}_3 = (0, 0, 1)$. Every vector of length 3 is a weighted sum $c_1\underset{\sim}{e}_1 + c_2\underset{\sim}{e}_2 + c_3\underset{\sim}{e}_3$ of them, with weights equal to its entries; for example,

$(2, -1, 5) = 2\underset{\sim}{e}_1 - 1\underset{\sim}{e}_2 + 5\underset{\sim}{e}_3$. No other weights work: entry $j$ of $c_1\underset{\sim}{e}_1 + c_2\underset{\sim}{e}_2 + c_3\underset{\sim}{e}_3$ is $c_j$, so each weight $c_j$ must equal entry $j$ of the vector.

**Theorem 0.2** (Indicator vectors select entries)**.** *For any vector $\underset{\sim}{x}$ of length $p$ and any $j \in \{1, \ldots, p\}$:*

$$\underset{\sim}{e}_j \cdot \underset{\sim}{x} = x_j$$

Proof

*Proof.* Writing the dot product componentwise:

$$\begin{aligned}
\underset{\sim}{e}_j \cdot \underset{\sim}{x} &= \sum_{i=1}^{p} (\underset{\sim}{e}_j)_i \, x_i && \text{(definition of the dot product)} \\
&= \sum_{i=1}^{p} \begin{cases} 1 \cdot x_i & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 \cdot x_i & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases} && \text{(definition of } \underset{\sim}{e}_j\text{)} \\
&= x_j && \text{(only the } i = j \text{ term is nonzero)}
\end{aligned}$$

□

**Theorem 0.3** (A vector is a linear combination of indicator vectors)**.** *Every vector $\underset{\sim}{x} \in \mathbb{R}^p$ is the linear combination (Definition 0.9) of the indicator vectors $\underset{\sim}{e}_1, \ldots, \underset{\sim}{e}_p$ (Definition 0.14) with coefficients $x_1, \ldots, x_p$:*

$$\underset{\sim}{x} = \sum_{j=1}^{p} x_j \underset{\sim}{e}_j$$

Proof

*Proof.* Compare the two sides entry by entry. For each $i \in \{1, \ldots, p\}$:

$$
\begin{aligned}
\left(\sum_{j=1}^{p} x_j \underset{\sim}{e}_j\right)_i &= \sum_{j=1}^{p} x_j (\underset{\sim}{e}_j)_i && \text{(Definition 0.9, entry by entry)} \\
&= \sum_{j=1}^{p} \begin{cases} x_j \cdot 1 & \text{if } j = i \\ x_j \cdot 0 & \text{if } j \neq i \end{cases} && \text{(Definition 0.14)} \\
&= x_i \cdot 1 + \sum_{j \neq i} x_j \cdot 0 && \text{(split off the } j = i \text{ term)} \\
&= x_i + 0 && \text{(times 1 changes nothing; times 0 gives 0)} \\
&= x_i && \text{(adding 0 changes nothing)}
\end{aligned}
$$

□

**Example 0.9** (Expanding a vector in indicator vectors)**.**

$$
\begin{aligned}
\begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} &= 4 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + (-1) \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + 2 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
&= 4\underset{\sim}{e}_1 - \underset{\sim}{e}_2 + 2\underset{\sim}{e}_3
\end{aligned}
$$

### Orthogonality

**Definition 0.15** (Orthogonal vectors)**.** Two vectors $\underset{\sim}{x}$ and $\underset{\sim}{y}$ of the same length are **orthogonal** [7] (written $\underset{\sim}{x} \perp \underset{\sim}{y}$) if their dot product (Definition 0.8) is zero:

$$
\underset{\sim}{x} \perp \underset{\sim}{y} \iff \underset{\sim}{x} \cdot \underset{\sim}{y} = 0
$$

**i** Remark (Orthogonal means perpendicular)

*Remark* 0.9 (Orthogonal means perpendicular). Orthogonality extends the geometric idea of perpendicular lines to vectors with any number of entries. In the plane, $(1, 2)$ and $(-2, 1)$ are perpendicular, and their dot product is $1 \cdot (-2) + 2 \cdot 1 = 0$. The same test works in $\mathbb{R}^3$, where pictures are harder to draw:

$$
\begin{aligned}
(1, 1, 0) \cdot (1, -1, 5) &= 1 - 1 + 0 \\
&= 0,
\end{aligned}
$$

so $(1, 1, 0) \perp (1, -1, 5)$.

**Example 0.10** (Vectors that are not orthogonal)**.**

$$\begin{aligned}(1,2)\cdot(1,1) &= 1\cdot 1 + 2\cdot 1\\ &= 3\\ &\neq 0,\end{aligned}$$

so $(1,2)$ and $(1,1)$ are not orthogonal.

**Definition 0.16** (Euclidean norm (length, $L_2$ norm))**.** The **Euclidean norm** [8] (or **length**, also called the $L_2$ **norm** and written $\|\underset{\sim}{x}\|_2$) of a vector $\underset{\sim}{x}$ of length $p$ is

$$\|\underset{\sim}{x}\| \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \sqrt{\underset{\sim}{x}\cdot\underset{\sim}{x}} = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{p} x_i^2} \tag{2}$$

where $\sqrt{\cdot}$ is the square root.

**Example 0.11** (The length of a vector)**.** For $\underset{\sim}{x} = (3,4)$:

$$\begin{aligned}\|\underset{\sim}{x}\| &= \sqrt{3^2+4^2} && \text{(definition of the norm)}\\ &= \sqrt{25} && \text{(square and add)}\\ &= 5\end{aligned}$$

The vector $(0.6, 0.8)$ has norm $\sqrt{0.36+0.64} = 1$.

**Definition 0.17** (Unit vector)**.** A **unit vector** [9] is a vector whose Euclidean norm (Definition 0.16) is 1. A unit vector is said to have *unit length*.

**Example 0.12** (A unit vector and a vector that is not one)**.** For $\underset{\sim}{x} = (0.6, 0.8)$:

$$\begin{aligned}\|\underset{\sim}{x}\| &= \sqrt{0.6^2+0.8^2} && \text{(definition of the norm)}\\ &= \sqrt{0.36+0.64} && \text{(square)}\\ &= \sqrt{1} && \text{(add)}\\ &= 1 && \text{(take the square root)}\end{aligned}$$

so $(0.6, 0.8)$ is a unit vector. The vector $(1,1)$ is not:

$$\begin{aligned}\|(1,1)\| &= \sqrt{1^2+1^2} \\ &= \sqrt{2} \\ &\neq 1.\end{aligned}$$

**Exercise 0.2** (How far apart are two points?)**.** Let $\underset{\sim}{x} = (1,2)$ and $\underset{\sim}{y} = (4,6)$.

1. Compute the vector $\underset{\sim}{x} - \underset{\sim}{y}$.
2. Compute the length of $\underset{\sim}{x} - \underset{\sim}{y}$, using the Euclidean norm.
3. Is the result the same if you compute the length of $\underset{\sim}{y} - \underset{\sim}{x}$ instead?

Solution

*Solution* 0.2.

1. $$\begin{aligned}\underset{\sim}{x} - \underset{\sim}{y} &= (1-4, 2-6) \\ &= (-3,-4).\end{aligned}$$

2. $$\begin{aligned}\|\underset{\sim}{x} - \underset{\sim}{y}\| &= \sqrt{(-3)^2+(-4)^2} \\ &= \sqrt{25} \\ &= 5.\end{aligned}$$

3. $\underset{\sim}{y} - \underset{\sim}{x} = (3,4)$, and

$$\begin{aligned}\|\underset{\sim}{y} - \underset{\sim}{x}\| &= \sqrt{3^2+4^2} \\ &= 5.\end{aligned}$$

   Yes, the result is the same.

**Definition 0.18** (Euclidean distance)**.** The **Euclidean distance** [10] between two vectors $\underset{\sim}{x}$ and $\underset{\sim}{y}$ of length $p$ is the Euclidean norm of their difference:

$$d(\underset{\sim}{x}, \underset{\sim}{y}) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \|\underset{\sim}{x} - \underset{\sim}{y}\| = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{p}(x_i - y_i)^2} \tag{3}$$

Remark (Distance from the origin)

*Remark* 0.10 (Distance from the origin). The distance from the origin $\underset{\sim}{0}$ to a vector $\underset{\sim}{x}$ is the norm of $\underset{\sim}{x}$:

$$\begin{aligned} d(\underset{\sim}{x}, \underset{\sim}{0}) &= \|\underset{\sim}{x} - \underset{\sim}{0}\| \\ &= \|\underset{\sim}{x}\| \end{aligned}$$

[11, p. 39].
For example, the distance from $\underset{\sim}{0}$ to $(3, 4)$ is $\|(3, 4)\| = 5$, as in Example 0.11.

**Definition 0.19** (Orthonormal vectors)**.** A set of vectors $\{\underset{\sim}{x}_1, \underset{\sim}{x}_2, \ldots, \underset{\sim}{x}_k\}$ is **orthonormal** if the vectors are mutually orthogonal (Definition 0.15) and each has norm 1 (Definition 0.16), that is, unit length:

$$\underset{\sim}{x}_i \cdot \underset{\sim}{x}_j = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases}$$

**Example 0.13** (Indicator vectors are orthonormal)**.** The indicator vectors $\underset{\sim}{e}_1, \underset{\sim}{e}_2, \ldots, \underset{\sim}{e}_p$ (Definition 0.14) form an orthonormal set. By Theorem 0.2, $\underset{\sim}{e}_i \cdot \underset{\sim}{e}_j$ is entry $i$ of $\underset{\sim}{e}_j$, which is 1 if $i = j$ and 0 if $i \neq j$. For $p = 2$:

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{e}_1 \cdot \underset{\sim}{e}_1 &= 1 \cdot 1 + 0 \cdot 0 \\ &= 1, \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{e}_2 \cdot \underset{\sim}{e}_2 &= 0 \cdot 0 + 1 \cdot 1 \\ &= 1, \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{e}_1 \cdot \underset{\sim}{e}_2 &= 1 \cdot 0 + 0 \cdot 1 \\ &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

**Example 0.14** (Two ways to fail to be orthonormal)**.**

- $(1, 1)$ and $(1, -1)$ are orthogonal, since $1 \cdot 1 + 1 \cdot (-1) = 0$, but not orthonormal: $(1, 1) \cdot (1, 1) = 2 \neq 1$.
- $(1, 0)$ and $(0.6, 0.8)$ both have unit length, since $(1, 0) \cdot (1, 0) = 1$ and

$$(0.6, 0.8) \cdot (0.6, 0.8) = 0.36 + 0.64$$
$$= 1,$$

but they are not orthonormal: $(1, 0) \cdot (0.6, 0.8) = 0.6 \neq 0$.

**Exercise 0.3** (Compute an inner product and a norm)**.** Let

$$\underset{\sim}{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \qquad \underset{\sim}{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 4 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}$$

Compute $\underset{\sim}{a}^\top \underset{\sim}{b}$ and $\|\underset{\sim}{a}\|_2$.

Solution

*Solution* 0.3. Multiply entry by entry and add:

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{a} \cdot \underset{\sim}{b} &= (3)(0) + (-1)(4) + (2)(-2) \\ &= 0 - 4 - 4 \\ &= -8 \end{aligned}$$

For the norm, take the inner product of $\underset{\sim}{a}$ with itself first:

$$\begin{aligned} \underset{\sim}{a} \cdot \underset{\sim}{a} &= 3^2 + (-1)^2 + 2^2 \\ &= 9 + 1 + 4 \\ &= 14 \end{aligned}$$

so

$$\|\underset{\sim}{a}\|_2 = \sqrt{14} \approx 3.742$$

The inner product came out negative while the norm cannot: a norm is a square root of a sum of squares, so it is never below zero.
Python has both operations built in, and R builds them from `sum`.

```python
import numpy as np

a = np.array([3.0, -1.0, 2.0])
b = np.array([0.0, 4.0, -2.0])

inner = float(a @ b)
norm_a = round(float(np.linalg.norm(a)), 3)

print(inner, norm_a)
#> -8.0 3.742
```

```r
a <- c(3, -1, 2)
b <- c(0, 4, -2)

print(c(sum(a * b), round(sqrt(sum(a^2)), 3)))
#> [1] -8.000  3.742
```

Both print -8 and 3.742.

**Video lecture**

Hutchinson's Linear Function Basics (24 min) covers dot products and the Euclidean norm, and goes on to hyperplanes (Definition 22 in Matrices) and level sets [12]. The login for the video site is posted on Canvas.


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